

Notice that the definition of $\tilde{X}_\rho$ makes sense whenever we are given an action ρ of $\pi_1(X, x_0)$ on a set F . There is a natural projection $\tilde{X}_\rho \rightarrow X$ sending $([y], \tilde{x}_0)$ to $y(1)$, and this is a covering space since if $U \subset X$ is an open set over which the universal cover $\tilde{X}_0$ is a product $U \times \pi_1(X, x_0)$, then the identifications defining $\tilde{X}_\rho$ simply collapse $U \times \pi_1(X, x_0) \times F$ to $U \times F$.

Returning to our given covering space $\tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ with associated action ρ , the map $\tilde{X}_\rho \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ induced by h is a bijection and therefore a homeomorphism since h was a local homeomorphism. Since this homeomorphism $\tilde{X}_\rho \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ takes each fiber of $\tilde{X}_\rho$ to the corresponding fiber of $\tilde{X}$, it is an isomorphism of covering spaces.

If two covering spaces $p_1: \tilde{X}_1 \rightarrow X$ and $p_2: \tilde{X}_2 \rightarrow X$ are isomorphic, one may ask how the corresponding actions of $\pi_1(X, x_0)$ on the fibers F_1 and F_2 over x_0 are related. An isomorphism $h: \tilde{X}_1 \rightarrow \tilde{X}_2$ restricts to a bijection $F_1 \rightarrow F_2$, and evidently $L_y(h(\tilde{x}_0)) = h(L_y(\tilde{x}_0))$. Using the less cumbersome notation $y\tilde{x}_0$ for $L_y(\tilde{x}_0)$, this relation can be written more concisely as $y h(\tilde{x}_0) = h(y\tilde{x}_0)$. A bijection $F_1 \rightarrow F_2$ with this property is what one would naturally call an *isomorphism of sets with $\pi_1(X, x_0)$ action*. Thus isomorphic covering spaces have isomorphic actions on fibers. The converse is also true, and easy to prove. One just observes that for isomorphic actions ρ_1 and ρ_2 , an isomorphism $h: F_1 \rightarrow F_2$ induces a map $\tilde{X}_{\rho_1} \rightarrow \tilde{X}_{\rho_2}$ and h^{-1} induces a similar map in the opposite direction, such that the compositions of these two maps, in either order, are the identity.

This shows that n -sheeted covering spaces of X are classified by equivalence classes of homomorphisms $\pi_1(X, x_0) \rightarrow \Sigma_n$, where Σ_n is the symmetric group on n symbols and the equivalence relation identifies a homomorphism ρ with each of its conjugates $h^{-1}\rho h$ by elements $h \in \Sigma_n$. The study of the various homomorphisms from a given group to Σ_n is a very classical topic in group theory, so we see that this algebraic question has a nice geometric interpretation.

Deck Transformations and Group Actions

For a covering space $p: \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ the isomorphisms $\tilde{X} \rightarrow \tilde{X}$ are called **deck transformations** or **covering transformations**. These form a group $G(\tilde{X})$ under composition. For example, for the covering space $p: \mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ projecting a vertical helix onto a circle, the deck transformations are the vertical translations taking the helix onto itself, so $G(\tilde{X}) \approx \mathbb{Z}$ in this case. For the n -sheeted covering space $S^1 \rightarrow S^1$, $z \mapsto z^n$, the deck transformations are the rotations of S^1 through angles that are multiples of $2\pi/n$, so $G(\tilde{X}) = \mathbb{Z}_n$.

By the unique lifting property, a deck transformation is completely determined by where it sends a single point, assuming $\tilde{X}$ is path-connected. In particular, only the identity deck transformation can fix a point of $\tilde{X}$.

A covering space $p: \tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ is called **normal** if for each $x \in X$ and each pair of lifts $\tilde{x}, \tilde{x}'$ of x there is a deck transformation taking $\tilde{x}$ to $\tilde{x}'$. For example, the covering

space $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ and the n -sheeted covering spaces $S^1 \rightarrow S^1$ are normal. Intuitively, a normal covering space is one with maximal symmetry. This can be seen in the covering spaces of $S^1 \vee S^1$ shown in the table earlier in this section, where the normal covering spaces are (1), (2), (5)–(8), and (11). Note that in (7) the group of deck transformations is $\mathbb{Z}_4$ while in (8) it is $\mathbb{Z}_2 \times \mathbb{Z}_2$.

Sometimes normal covering spaces are called regular covering spaces. The term ‘normal’ is motivated by the following result.

Proposition 1.39. *Let $p: (\tilde{X}, \tilde{x}_0) \rightarrow (X, x_0)$ be a path-connected covering space of the path-connected, locally path-connected space X , and let H be the subgroup $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{x}_0)) \subset \pi_1(X, x_0)$. Then:*

- (a) *This covering space is normal iff H is a normal subgroup of $\pi_1(X, x_0)$.*
- (b) *$G(\tilde{X})$ is isomorphic to the quotient $N(H)/H$ where $N(H)$ is the normalizer of H in $\pi_1(X, x_0)$.*

In particular, $G(\tilde{X})$ is isomorphic to $\pi_1(X, x_0)/H$ if $\tilde{X}$ is a normal covering. Hence for the universal cover $\tilde{X} \rightarrow X$ we have $G(\tilde{X}) \approx \pi_1(X)$.

Proof: We observed earlier in the proof of the classification theorem that changing the basepoint $\tilde{x}_0 \in p^{-1}(x_0)$ to $\tilde{x}_1 \in p^{-1}(x_0)$ corresponds precisely to conjugating H by an element $[y] \in \pi_1(X, x_0)$ where y lifts to a path $\tilde{y}$ from $\tilde{x}_0$ to $\tilde{x}_1$. Thus $[y]$ is in the normalizer $N(H)$ iff $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{x}_0)) = p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{x}_1))$, which by the lifting criterion is equivalent to the existence of a deck transformation taking $\tilde{x}_0$ to $\tilde{x}_1$. Hence the covering space is normal iff $N(H) = \pi_1(X, x_0)$, that is, iff H is a normal subgroup of $\pi_1(X, x_0)$.

Define $\varphi: N(H) \rightarrow G(\tilde{X})$ sending $[y]$ to the deck transformation τ taking $\tilde{x}_0$ to $\tilde{x}_1$, in the notation above. Then φ is a homomorphism, for if y' is another loop corresponding to the deck transformation τ' taking $\tilde{x}_0$ to $\tilde{x}'_1$ then $y \cdot y'$ lifts to $\tilde{y} \cdot (\tau(\tilde{y}'))$, a path from $\tilde{x}_0$ to $\tau(\tilde{x}'_1) = \tau\tau'(\tilde{x}_0)$, so $\tau\tau'$ is the deck transformation corresponding to $[y][y']$. By the preceding paragraph φ is surjective. Its kernel consists of classes $[y]$ lifting to loops in $\tilde{X}$. These are exactly the elements of $p_*(\pi_1(\tilde{X}, \tilde{x}_0)) = H$. $\square$

The group of deck transformations is a special case of the general notion of ‘groups acting on spaces.’ Given a group G and a space Y , then an **action** of G on Y is a homomorphism ρ from G to the group $\text{Homeo}(Y)$ of all homeomorphisms from Y to itself. Thus to each $g \in G$ is associated a homeomorphism $\rho(g): Y \rightarrow Y$, which for notational simplicity we write simply as $g: Y \rightarrow Y$. For ρ to be a homomorphism amounts to requiring that $g_1(g_2(y)) = (g_1g_2)(y)$ for all $g_1, g_2 \in G$ and $y \in Y$. If ρ is injective then it identifies G with a subgroup of $\text{Homeo}(Y)$, and in practice not much is lost in assuming ρ is an inclusion $G \hookrightarrow \text{Homeo}(Y)$ since in any case the subgroup $\rho(G) \subset \text{Homeo}(Y)$ contains all the topological information about the action.

We shall be interested in actions satisfying the following condition:

- (*) Each $y \in Y$ has a neighborhood U such that all the images $g(U)$ for varying $g \in G$ are disjoint. In other words, $g_1(U) \cap g_2(U) \neq \emptyset$ implies $g_1 = g_2$.

The action of the deck transformation group $G(\tilde{X})$ on $\tilde{X}$ satisfies (*). To see this, let $\tilde{U} \subset \tilde{X}$ project homeomorphically to $U \subset X$. If $g_1(\tilde{U}) \cap g_2(\tilde{U}) \neq \emptyset$ for some $g_1, g_2 \in G(\tilde{X})$, then $g_1(\tilde{x}_1) = g_2(\tilde{x}_2)$ for some $\tilde{x}_1, \tilde{x}_2 \in \tilde{U}$. Since $\tilde{x}_1$ and $\tilde{x}_2$ must lie in the same set $p^{-1}(x)$, which intersects $\tilde{U}$ in only one point, we must have $\tilde{x}_1 = \tilde{x}_2$. Then $g_1^{-1}g_2$ fixes this point, so $g_1^{-1}g_2 = \mathbb{1}$ and $g_1 = g_2$.

Note that in (*) it suffices to take g_1 to be the identity since $g_1(U) \cap g_2(U) \neq \emptyset$ is equivalent to $U \cap g_1^{-1}g_2(U) \neq \emptyset$. Thus we have the equivalent condition that $U \cap g(U) \neq \emptyset$ only when g is the identity.

Given an action of a group G on a space Y , we can form a space Y/G , the quotient space of Y in which each point y is identified with all its images $g(y)$ as g ranges over G . The points of Y/G are thus the **orbits** $Gy = \{g(y) \mid g \in G\}$ in Y , and Y/G is called the **orbit space** of the action. For example, for a normal covering space $\tilde{X} \rightarrow X$, the orbit space $\tilde{X}/G(\tilde{X})$ is just X .

Proposition 1.40. *If an action of a group G on a space Y satisfies (*), then:*

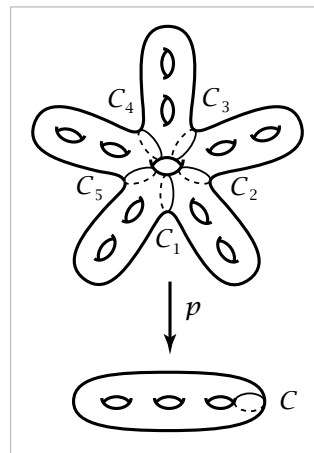
- (a) *The quotient map $p: Y \rightarrow Y/G$, $p(y) = Gy$, is a normal covering space.*
- (b) *G is the group of deck transformations of this covering space $Y \rightarrow Y/G$ if Y is path-connected.*
- (c) *G is isomorphic to $\pi_1(Y/G)/p_*(\pi_1(Y))$ if Y is path-connected and locally path-connected.*

Proof: Given an open set $U \subset Y$ as in condition (*), the quotient map p simply identifies all the disjoint homeomorphic sets $\{g(U) \mid g \in G\}$ to a single open set $p(U)$ in Y/G . By the definition of the quotient topology on Y/G , p restricts to a homeomorphism from $g(U)$ onto $p(U)$ for each $g \in G$ so we have a covering space. Each element of G acts as a deck transformation, and the covering space is normal since $g_2g_1^{-1}$ takes $g_1(U)$ to $g_2(U)$. The deck transformation group contains G as a subgroup, and equals this subgroup if Y is path-connected, since if f is any deck transformation, then for an arbitrarily chosen point $y \in Y$, y and $f(y)$ are in the same orbit and there is a $g \in G$ with $g(y) = f(y)$, hence $f = g$ since deck transformations of a path-connected covering space are uniquely determined by where they send a point. The final statement of the proposition is immediate from part (b) of Proposition 1.39. $\square$

In view of the preceding proposition, we shall call an action satisfying (*) a **covering space action**. This is not standard terminology, but there does not seem to be a universally accepted name for actions satisfying (*). Sometimes these are called ‘properly discontinuous’ actions, but more often this rather unattractive term means

something weaker: Every point $x \in X$ has a neighborhood U such that $U \cap g(U)$ is nonempty for only finitely many $g \in G$. Many symmetry groups have this proper discontinuity property without satisfying $(*)$, for example the group of symmetries of the familiar tiling of $\mathbb{R}^2$ by regular hexagons. The reason why the action of this group on $\mathbb{R}^2$ fails to satisfy $(*)$ is that there are **fixed points**: points y for which there is a nontrivial element $g \in G$ with $g(y) = y$. For example, the vertices of the hexagons are fixed by the 120 degree rotations about these points, and the midpoints of edges are fixed by 180 degree rotations. An action without fixed points is called a **free action**. Thus for a free action of G on Y , only the identity element of G fixes any point of Y . This is equivalent to requiring that all the images $g(y)$ of each $y \in Y$ are distinct, or in other words $g_1(y) = g_2(y)$ only when $g_1 = g_2$, since $g_1(y) = g_2(y)$ is equivalent to $g_1^{-1}g_2(y) = y$. Though condition $(*)$ implies freeness, the converse is not always true. An example is the action of $\mathbb{Z}$ on S^1 in which a generator of $\mathbb{Z}$ acts by rotation through an angle α that is an irrational multiple of 2π . In this case each orbit $\mathbb{Z}y$ is dense in S^1 , so condition $(*)$ cannot hold since it implies that orbits are discrete subspaces. An exercise at the end of the section is to show that for actions on Hausdorff spaces, freeness plus proper discontinuity implies condition $(*)$. Note that proper discontinuity is automatic for actions by a finite group.

Example 1.41. Let Y be the closed orientable surface of genus 11, an ‘11-hole torus’ as shown in the figure. This has a 5-fold rotational symmetry, generated by a rotation of angle $2\pi/5$. Thus we have the cyclic group $\mathbb{Z}_5$ acting on Y , and the condition $(*)$ is obviously satisfied. The quotient space $Y/\mathbb{Z}_5$ is a surface of genus 3, obtained from one of the five subsurfaces of Y cut off by the circles $C_1, \dots, C_5$ by identifying its two boundary circles C_i and C_{i+1} to form the circle C as shown. Thus we have a covering space $M_{11} \rightarrow M_3$ where M_g denotes the closed orientable surface of genus g . In particular, we see that $\pi_1(M_3)$ contains the ‘larger’ group $\pi_1(M_{11})$ as a normal subgroup of index 5, with quotient $\mathbb{Z}_5$. This example obviously generalizes by replacing the two holes in each ‘arm’ of M_{11} by m holes and the 5-fold symmetry by n -fold symmetry. This gives a covering space $M_{mn+1} \rightarrow M_{m+1}$. An exercise in §2.2 is to show by an Euler characteristic argument that if there is a covering space $M_g \rightarrow M_h$ then $g = mn + 1$ and $h = m + 1$ for some m and n .

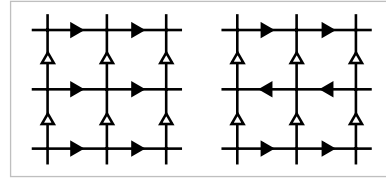


As a special case of the final statement of the preceding proposition we see that for a covering space action of a group G on a simply-connected locally path-connected space Y , the orbit space Y/G has fundamental group isomorphic to G . Under this isomorphism an element $g \in G$ corresponds to a loop in Y/G that is the projection of

a path in Y from a chosen basepoint y_0 to $g(y_0)$. Any two such paths are homotopic since Y is simply-connected, so we get a well-defined element of $\pi_1(Y/G)$ associated to g .

This method for computing fundamental groups via group actions on simply-connected spaces is essentially how we computed $\pi_1(S^1)$ in §1.1, via the covering space $\mathbb{R} \rightarrow S^1$ arising from the action of $\mathbb{Z}$ on $\mathbb{R}$ by translations. This is a useful general technique for computing fundamental groups, in fact. Here are some examples illustrating this idea.

Example 1.42. Consider the grid in $\mathbb{R}^2$ formed by the horizontal and vertical lines through points in $\mathbb{Z}^2$. Let us decorate this grid with arrows in either of the two ways shown in the figure, the difference between the two cases being that in the second case the horizontal arrows in adjacent lines point in opposite directions. The group G consisting of all symmetries of the first decorated grid is isomorphic to $\mathbb{Z} \times \mathbb{Z}$ since it consists of all translations $(x, y) \mapsto (x + m, y + n)$ for $m, n \in \mathbb{Z}$. For the second grid the symmetry group G contains a subgroup of translations of the form $(x, y) \mapsto (x + m, y + 2n)$ for $m, n \in \mathbb{Z}$, but there are also glide-reflection symmetries consisting of vertical translation by an odd integer distance followed by reflection across a vertical line, either a vertical line of the grid or a vertical line halfway between two adjacent grid lines. For both decorated grids there are elements of G taking any square to any other, but only the identity element of G takes a square to itself. The minimum distance any point is moved by a nontrivial element of G is 1, which easily implies the covering space condition (*). The orbit space $\mathbb{R}^2/G$ is the quotient space of a square in the grid with opposite edges identified according to the arrows. Thus we see that the fundamental groups of the torus and the Klein bottle are the symmetry groups G in the two cases. In the second case the subgroup of G formed by the translations has index two, and the orbit space for this subgroup is a torus forming a two-sheeted covering space of the Klein bottle.



Example 1.43: $\mathbb{RP}^n$. The antipodal map of S^n , $x \mapsto -x$, generates an action of $\mathbb{Z}_2$ on S^n with orbit space $\mathbb{RP}^n$, real projective n -space, as defined in Example 0.4. The action is a covering space action since each open hemisphere in S^n is disjoint from its antipodal image. As we saw in Proposition 1.14, S^n is simply-connected if $n \geq 2$, so from the covering space $S^n \rightarrow \mathbb{RP}^n$ we deduce that $\pi_1(\mathbb{RP}^n) \approx \mathbb{Z}_2$ for $n \geq 2$. A generator for $\pi_1(\mathbb{RP}^n)$ is any loop obtained by projecting a path in S^n connecting two antipodal points. One can see explicitly that such a loop γ has order two in $\pi_1(\mathbb{RP}^n)$ if $n \geq 2$ since the composition $\gamma \cdot \gamma$ lifts to a loop in S^n , and this can be homotoped to the trivial loop since $\pi_1(S^n) = 0$, so the projection of this homotopy into $\mathbb{RP}^n$ gives a nullhomotopy of $\gamma \cdot \gamma$.

One may ask whether there are other finite groups that act freely on S^n , defining covering spaces $S^n \rightarrow S^n/G$. We will show in Proposition 2.29 that $\mathbb{Z}_2$ is the only possibility when n is even, but for odd n the question is much more difficult. It is easy to construct a free action of any cyclic group $\mathbb{Z}_m$ on S^{2k-1} , the action generated by the rotation $v \mapsto e^{2\pi i/m}v$ of the unit sphere S^{2k-1} in $\mathbb{C}^k = \mathbb{R}^{2k}$. This action is free since an equation $v = e^{2\pi i\ell/m}v$ with $0 < \ell < m$ implies $v = 0$, but 0 is not a point of S^{2k-1} . The orbit space $S^{2k-1}/\mathbb{Z}_m$ is one of a family of spaces called *lens spaces* defined in Example 2.43.

There are also noncyclic finite groups that act freely as rotations of S^n for odd $n > 1$. These actions are classified quite explicitly in [Wolf 1984]. Examples in the simplest case $n = 3$ can be produced as follows. View $\mathbb{R}^4$ as the quaternion algebra $\mathbb{H}$. Multiplication of quaternions satisfies $|ab| = |a||b|$ where $|a|$ denotes the usual Euclidean length of a vector $a \in \mathbb{R}^4$. Thus if a and b are unit vectors, so is ab , and hence quaternion multiplication defines a map $S^3 \times S^3 \rightarrow S^3$. This in fact makes S^3 into a group, though associativity is all we need now since associativity implies that any subgroup G of S^3 acts on S^3 by left-multiplication, $g(x) = gx$. This action is free since an equation $x = gx$ in the division algebra $\mathbb{H}$ implies $g = 1$ or $x = 0$. As a concrete example, G could be the familiar quaternion group $Q_8 = \{\pm 1, \pm i, \pm j, \pm k\}$ from group theory. More generally, for a positive integer m , let Q_{4m} be the subgroup of S^3 generated by the two quaternions $a = e^{\pi i/m}$ and $b = j$. Thus a has order $2m$ and b has order 4. The easily verified relations $a^m = b^2 = -1$ and $bab^{-1} = a^{-1}$ imply that the subgroup $\mathbb{Z}_{2m}$ generated by a is normal and of index 2 in Q_{4m} . Hence Q_{4m} is a group of order $4m$, called the *generalized quaternion group*. Another common name for this group is the *binary dihedral group* D_{4m}^* since its quotient by the subgroup $\{\pm 1\}$ is the ordinary dihedral group D_{2m} of order $2m$.

Besides the groups $Q_{4m} = D_{4m}^*$ there are just three other noncyclic finite subgroups of S^3 : the binary tetrahedral, octahedral, and icosahedral groups T_{24}^* , O_{48}^* , and I_{120}^* , of orders indicated by the subscripts. These project two-to-one onto the groups of rotational symmetries of a regular tetrahedron, octahedron (or cube), and icosahedron (or dodecahedron). In fact, it is not hard to see that the homomorphism $S^3 \rightarrow SO(3)$ sending $u \in S^3 \subset \mathbb{H}$ to the isometry $v \mapsto u^{-1}vu$ of $\mathbb{R}^3$, viewing $\mathbb{R}^3$ as the ‘pure imaginary’ quaternions $v = ai + bj + ck$, is surjective with kernel $\{\pm 1\}$. Then the groups D_{4m}^* , T_{24}^* , O_{48}^* , I_{120}^* are the preimages in S^3 of the groups of rotational symmetries of a regular polygon or polyhedron in $\mathbb{R}^3$.

There are two conditions that a finite group G acting freely on S^n must satisfy:

- (a) Every abelian subgroup of G is cyclic. This is equivalent to saying that G contains no subgroup $\mathbb{Z}_p \times \mathbb{Z}_p$ with p prime.
- (b) G contains at most one element of order 2.

A proof of (a) is sketched in an exercise for §4.2. For a proof of (b) the original source [Milnor 1957] is recommended reading. The groups satisfying (a) have been

completely classified; see [Brown 1982], section VI.9, for details. An example of a group satisfying (a) but not (b) is the dihedral group D_{2m} for odd $m > 1$.

There is also a much more difficult converse: A finite group satisfying (a) and (b) acts freely on S^n for some n . References for this are [Madsen, Thomas, & Wall 1976] and [Davis & Milgram 1985]. There is also almost complete information about which n 's are possible for a given group.

Example 1.44. In Example 1.35 we constructed a contractible 2-complex $\tilde{X}_{m,n} = T_{m,n} \times \mathbb{R}$ as the universal cover of a finite 2-complex $X_{m,n}$ that was the union of the mapping cylinders of the two maps $S^1 \rightarrow S^1$, $z \mapsto z^m$ and $z \mapsto z^n$. The group of deck transformations of this covering space is therefore the fundamental group $\pi_1(X_{m,n})$. From van Kampen's theorem applied to the decomposition of $X_{m,n}$ into the two mapping cylinders we have the presentation $\langle a, b \mid a^m b^{-n} \rangle$ for this group $G_{m,n} = \pi_1(X_{m,n})$. It is interesting to look at the action of $G_{m,n}$ on $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$ more closely. We described a decomposition of $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$ into rectangles, with $X_{m,n}$ the quotient of one rectangle. These rectangles in fact define a cell structure on $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$ lifting a cell structure on $X_{m,n}$ with two vertices, three edges, and one 2-cell. The group $G_{m,n}$ is thus a group of symmetries of this cell structure on $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$. If we orient the three edges of $X_{m,n}$ and lift these orientations to the edges of $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$, then $G_{m,n}$ is the group of all symmetries of $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$ preserving the orientations of edges. For example, the element a acts as a 'screw motion' about an axis that is a vertical line $\{v_a\} \times \mathbb{R}$ with v_a a vertex of $T_{m,n}$, and b acts similarly for a vertex v_b .

Since the action of $G_{m,n}$ on $\tilde{X}_{m,n}$ preserves the cell structure, it also preserves the product structure $T_{m,n} \times \mathbb{R}$. This means that there are actions of $G_{m,n}$ on $T_{m,n}$ and $\mathbb{R}$ such that the action on the product $X_{m,n} = T_{m,n} \times \mathbb{R}$ is the diagonal action $g(x, y) = (g(x), g(y))$ for $g \in G_{m,n}$. If we make the rectangles of unit height in the $\mathbb{R}$ coordinate, then the element $a^m = b^n$ acts on $\mathbb{R}$ as unit translation, while a acts by $1/m$ translation and b by $1/n$ translation. The translation actions of a and b on $\mathbb{R}$ generate a group of translations of $\mathbb{R}$ that is infinite cyclic, generated by translation by the reciprocal of the least common multiple of m and n .

The action of $G_{m,n}$ on $T_{m,n}$ has kernel consisting of the powers of the element $a^m = b^n$. This infinite cyclic subgroup is precisely the center of $G_{m,n}$, as we saw in Example 1.24. There is an induced action of the quotient group $\mathbb{Z}_m * \mathbb{Z}_n$ on $T_{m,n}$, but this is not a free action since the elements a and b and all their conjugates fix vertices of $T_{m,n}$. On the other hand, if we restrict the action of $G_{m,n}$ on $T_{m,n}$ to the kernel K of the map $G_{m,n} \rightarrow \mathbb{Z}$ given by the action of $G_{m,n}$ on the $\mathbb{R}$ factor of $X_{m,n}$, then we do obtain a free action of K on $T_{m,n}$. Since this action takes vertices to vertices and edges to edges, it is a covering space action, so K is a free group, the fundamental group of the graph $T_{m,n}/K$. An exercise at the end of the section is to determine $T_{m,n}/K$ explicitly and compute the number of generators of K .